

A VULCANOLOGICAL JOACHIM OF FIORE
AND AN AERODYNAMIC FRANCIS OF ASSISI
IN COLONIAL LATIN AMERICA

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CATACLYSMS of nature and apocalyptic beliefs have always gone hand in hand. While Christians have had no monopoly on such beliefs, expectations of this kind have been an important part of the Western religious tradition both in Christian Europe and in the 'millennial New World', the latter a time and place of heightened eschatological anticipation. One of the 'best-sellers' among Christians in medieval Europe was *The Fifteen Signs before Doomsday*, a work that detailed the cataclysms which would occur before the end.¹ But in another region of the world – a new world replete with frequent seismic and volcanic activity – it became even more so a type of prophecy that would captivate the religious imagination of colonizers and missionaries.

The last fifty years of scholarly research on the discovery and evangelization of the Americas have demonstrated the presence of pervasive eschatological, apocalyptic, and chiliastic thinking among the New World colonizers and the colonized alike, which coloured both the initial evangelization and the subsequent development of Church policy. In many ways, the New World of the sixteenth century cannot be considered the first blossoming of the Early Modern Period, as much as the last flowering of a medieval culture that began with St Augustine's *City of God*.² There, among newly discovered lands and peoples, it was hoped that a final golden age of world history – a millennial kingdom of the mendicant friars and their new Christians – would be inaugurated.³ The medieval foundation of this millennial belief had

¹ See the modern edition: William Watts Heist, *The Fifteen Signs before Doomsday* (East Lansing, MI, 1952).

² On the continuation of the Middle Ages into the sixteenth-century New World, see Luis Weckmann, *La Herencia medieval de México* (Mexico, 1984), Engl. transl. by Frances M. López-Morillas, *The Medieval Heritage of Mexico* (New York, 1992).

³ See, for example: John Leddy Phelan, *The Millennial Kingdom of the Franciscans in the New World: a Study of the Writings of Gerónimo de Mendieta (1525–1604)* (2nd edn, Berkeley, CA, 1970); Alain Milhou, *Colón y su mentalidad mesiánica en el ambiente franciscanista español* (Valladolid, 1983); idem, 'Apocalypticism in Central and South American Colonialism', in

been provided by the twelfth-century prophet of history, Joachim of Fiore, and it experienced a revival among the first generation of Franciscans, Augustinians and Dominicans who evangelized the native peoples of America. The Franciscans were particularly enamoured of Joachim because of his supposed prediction of the advent of St. Francis as an eschatological figure. When a cataclysmic event occurred in the first year of the seventeenth century, it challenged the friars to rethink Joachim's prophecies, as well as to respond to newly ignited and dangerous prophecies of the Indians. This paper attempts to bring together some of this millennial research. By considering historical, mythic, theological, and anthropological texts side by side with visual images, I shall attempt to arrive at a three-dimensional representation of the period and its preoccupations. Hopefully, the end result will be to make evident the intellectual richness of colonial Latin America, and to stimulate further investigation into this area of ecclesiastical history.

Like the very individuals with whom I shall deal in this article, I am a picture-thinker. As an art historian, I think in terms of visual history and visualized narratives; so let me begin this inquiry into a millennial moment by relating a story, a true story both of coincidence and of deeper concerns.

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In the year of our Lord 1600, on the second Friday in the season of Lent, sometime between noon and 3:00 in the afternoon, that is, at the hour of the accustomed Lenten penitential processions, the Peruvian volcano of Huaynaputina began a protracted series of explosions and eruptions.⁴ It was the largest recorded volcanic eruption in the Western

The Encyclopedia of Apocalypticism, 3 vols (New York, 1998–2000), 3: 3–35; Marcel Bataillon, *Erasmus y España: estudios sobre la historia espiritual del siglo XVI* (2nd edn, Mexico, 1966); Georges Baudot, *Utopía e Historia en México: los primeros cronistas de la civilización mexicana (1520–69)* (Madrid, 1983); Juana Mary Arcelus Ulibarrena, 'La esperanza milenaria de Joaquín de Fiore y el Nuevo Mundo: trayectoria de una utopía', *Floresia* 1 (1987), 47–78; Delno West, 'Medieval Ideas of Apocalyptic Mission and the Early Franciscans in Mexico', *The Americas* 45 (1989), 293–313; the articles in Gian Luca Potestà, ed., *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquecento: Atti del III Congresso Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti, San Giovanni in Fiore, 17–21 settembre 1989* (Genova, 1991); Frank Graziano, *The Millennial New World* (Oxford, 1999); Jaime Lara, *City, Temple, Stage: Eschatological Architecture and Liturgical Theatrics in New Spain* (Notre Dame, IN, 2004).

⁴ The volcano is located 70 km southeast of the city of Arequipa, Peru. The eruption of Huaynaputina ranked a number 6 on the intensity scale of volcanic eruptions. The maximum, a number 8, has only been recorded for the eruption of Krakatau. Tom Simkin and Lee Siebert, *Volcanoes of the World: a Regional Directory, Gazetteer, and Chronology of Volcanism during the Last 10,000 Years* (2nd edn, Tucson, AZ, 1994), 143.

Hemisphere, greater by far than that of Vesuvius in 79 CE, or Mount St Helens, U.S.A., in 1980, and only slightly smaller than the colossal eruption of Krakatou, Indonesia, in 1883. It sent both Christian Spaniards and neo-Christian Indians searching for answers to apocalyptic questions.⁵

On that Friday, 18 February 1600, several violent earthquakes levelled buildings and the first eruption occurred accompanied by deafening explosions and flashes of light apparently coming from the caldera. On Sunday, 20 February, another explosion occurred, spewing ash and pumice. The sky turned red, then darkened to the black of midnight – and all this at high noon. It was not until six days later that the sun and stars returned to be seen. But on the following Friday, 25 February, a new series of eruptions commenced, and the ear-shattering noise and the earthquakes continued. The blast was so strong that it was reported to have been heard within a radius of one thousand kilometres. In the nearby city of Arequipa the ground gave way, rising or sinking two metres in some places. The stone vaulting of the cathedral collapsed, crushing to death the faithful who were attending Mass. On Monday, 28 February, at 3 o'clock in the afternoon the darkness was again total and continued so until 1 March, when Huaynaputina opened its eastward side in what is known as a 'lateral eruption' and a river of fire flowed out into the nearby Tambo river.⁶ The river backed upstream and created two temporary lakes twenty-eight kilometres long. Fish were either boiled alive or soon died because of the high content of mercury in the contaminated water. Throughout the ordeal, during the long pitch-black days that spread like a belt across South America, the terror was heightened by red-hot bombs of molten lava, the size of a man's head, which were ejected with such force that they rained fire from heaven for miles around. What began on 18 February continued until 2 April when the sun finally reappeared. By that time, the suffocating ash had completely buried several Indian towns and their entire populations. In August of that year, there was another eruption, and finally in November, ten months later, the event – which had all the elements of the Apocalypse – ended, not to be repeated until 1667. The news of the event was spread rapidly throughout the

⁵ Thérèse Bouysse-Cassagne and Philippe Bouysse, 'Volcan indien, volcan chrétien: à propos de l'éruption du Huaynaputina en l'an 1600 (Pérou Méridional)', *Journal de la Société des Américanistes* 70 (1982), 43–68.

⁶ The river of hell-fire is typical of Byzantine and Italian depictions of the Last Judgment; see, for example, Desanka Milošević, *The Last Judgment* (Vaduz, 1964), esp. 29–59.

American colonies by the *Cartas Anuas* of the Jesuits and by several chroniclers.⁷ Fear of similar cataclysms abounded because, in the faulty science of the time, it was thought that volcanoes communicated with one another underground and that the eruption of one could presage the eruption of another.⁸

The Spaniards in Peru reacted in a predictably Christian way, discerning the displeasure and wrath of God, especially in light of the lascivious Carnival that they had ended only a few days prior to the first eruption. As *The Fifteen Signs before Doomsday* reminded the reader, earthquakes, eruptions, and the poisoning of the waters would presage the end of days. Indeed, rivers of molten fire had always been familiar elements in visual depictions of punishment and the Last Judgement in the European and Byzantine traditions, as at Torcello, or in Giotto's interpretation of the theme in the Scrovegni Chapel at Padua.⁹

The neo-Christian natives of Peru, on the other hand, reverted to the mythology of their Inca past and saw the volcano as a *huaca*, a deity who was fighting on their side against the European invaders and the Christian God. The conquest of Peru had been particularly cruel, chaotic, and prolonged; and only ten years earlier the Incas had participated in a bloody and futile rebellion against the Spanish overlords.¹⁰ In their Quechua language the eruption of Huaynaputina was the moment of *pachacuti*, literally 'the world turned upside down', which heralded a rupture or reversal of the given order, the return of the mythical Inca, and the commencement of a third and final age of world history.

My purpose in relating this story is not to offer a lesson in vulcanology, but to say that it is shortly after this cataclysmic occurrence that Joachim of Fiore was first seen in the Americas; and, not surprisingly,

⁷ It was later incorporated into the *Historia del Nuevo Mundo* of Fray Bernabé Cobo (1653); Martín Murúa, *Historia del origen y genealogía real de los reyes incas del Perú* (1611); and the travelogue of Fray Diego de Ocaña (MS no. 215 in the Library of the University of Oviedo) in modern transcription as *Un viaje fascinante por la América Hispánica del siglo XVII* [1605] (Madrid, 1969).

⁸ Other volcanoes erupted in the vicinity of Huaynaputina: Urbina in 1600, 1662, 1677, 1784; Misti in 1677, 1784, 1787; Sabancaya in 1750 and 1784. Popocatepetl, in central Mexico (see below), has experienced almost continuous eruptions both large and small throughout recorded history.

⁹ The Last Judgement is located on the interior west wall of both buildings. The river of fire flows from beneath Christ's throne, off to his left, and down to hell.

¹⁰ The rebel Inca lord, Túpac Amaru, had been publicly executed in 1572. Uprisings continued sporadically until 1590.

he was usually accompanied by a flying Francis of Assisi.¹¹ This was no coincidence, but directly related to the explosion of Huaynaputina, and in response to the incendiary political-social-religious situation posed by the conquest of the Andes.

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Joachim of Fiore is one of the most interesting but understudied figures of the medieval world. He was considered for several centuries to be a *magnus propheta* and the greatest picture-thinker of the Middle Ages. Born about 1135 in Calabria, he was the son of a wealthy merchant.¹² After a pilgrimage to the Latin Kingdom of the Crusaders in the Holy Land, he dedicated his life to the pursuit of God. For a time he lived as a hermit in Sicily upon the dangerous slopes of Mount Etna, an active volcano that had recently erupted.¹³ Hence, he had a certain association with volcanic eruptions, a connection that continues today in his homeland where he is a local saint and protector against disasters.

He was a wandering preacher in his native Calabria before being ordained and entering the Benedictine monastery of Corazzo. Joachim soon became abbot, and during the 1180s was involved in a campaign

¹¹ For the presence or influence of Joachim of Fiore in European art see: Guido Bondatti, *Gioachinismo e francescanesimo nel Duecento* (S. Maria degli Angeli, 1924), 147–64; Jean Rousset, 'Il più antico ritratto di Gioacchino da Fiore', *Archivio Storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* 3 (1933), 321–4; F. D. Klingender, 'St Francis and the Birds of the Apocalypse', *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 16 (1952), 13–23; Franco Prosperi, *La mistica gioachimita prefrancescana nella simbologia delle sculture: la facciata della cattedrale di Assisi* (Perugia, 1968); Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Later Middle Ages: a Study in Joachimism* (Oxford, 1969; 2nd edn, Notre Dame, IN, 1993), 73, 96–100, 164–5, 230, 266, 460, 479; Edith Pásztor, 'Architettura monastica, sistemazione urbanistica e lavoro del Novus Ordo auspicato da Gioacchino da Fiore', in *I Cistercensi e il Lazio: Atti delle giornate di studio dell'Istituto di storia dell'arte dell'Università di Roma*, 17–21 maggio 1977 (Rome, 1978), 149–56; Malcolm Bull, 'The Iconography of the Sistine Chapel Ceiling', *Burlington Magazine* 130 (1988), 597–605; Ferdinando Batazzi, 'L'iconografia francescana nel chiostro di Ognissanti di Firenze secondo gli Spirituali e nelle cronache manoscritte', *Vivens homo* 2 (1991), 277–84; Josephine Jungic, 'Joachimist Prophecies in Sebastiano del Piombo's Borgherini Chapel and Raphael's Transfiguration', in Marjorie Reeves, ed., *Prophetic Rome in the High Renaissance Period* (Oxford, 1992), 321–44; *Gioacchino Abate di Fiore*, ed. Mariolona Bitonti (San Giovanni in Fiore, 1998), 9–14 and 47–76.

¹² Robert Lerner, 'Joachim of Fiore's Vision of Irenic Conversion', unpublished lecture delivered at Columbia University, 26 October 1996, wherein he speculated on a Jewish origin for Joachim, based on new evidence.

¹³ Mount Etna had erupted in 1163 accompanied by an earthquake and tsunamis. This event was incorporated into the apocalyptic prophecy known as the *Vaticinium Sibyllae Erithraeae*; see Bernard McGinn, *Visions of the End: Apocalyptic Traditions in the Middle Ages* (New York, 1979; 2nd edn, 1998), 122–5.

to have his monastery incorporated into the stricter Cistercian order.¹⁴ It was during this time that he first came to the attention of Pope Lucius III, who encouraged him to write down his apocalyptic theories and to expound a mysterious prophecy attributed to the Sibyls that had recently come to light in Rome.¹⁵

In 1188 Joachim and his followers separated themselves from the monastery, and by 1192 had founded a new house at San Giovanni in Fiore, in the high Sila plateau. Despite the remoteness of the new establishment, during the final decade of his life, Joachim had numerous contacts with the great and powerful.¹⁶ By the time of his death in 1202, he was one of the most noted religious figures of his day.¹⁷ He shared much with the Jewish and Christian apocalyptic prophets of the biblical period, and identified himself with Ezekiel, the prophet of the exile. A sense of immediately impending crisis provided the motive for the proclamation of his message from the book of Revelation that 'the sixth seal is about to be broken open'.¹⁸

Joachim was a first-rate visual thinker, graphic artist, and biblical exegete whose scriptural hermeneutic was based upon a distinction between allegory and concordance. As Marjorie Reeves states:

Concord is not allegory; it is a similitude of proportion between actual historical events which exist in their own right, each in its own dispensation. The concords are inbuilt in their very historical existence by the hand of God. . . .¹⁹

¹⁴ Corazzo was first a Benedictine and then a Cistercian monastery during Joachim's lifetime; hence, the different colour habits worn by Joachim in works of art.

¹⁵ McGinn, *Visions of the End*, 126. For the text and interpretation of the Sibylline oracles, see Bernard McGinn, 'Joachim and the Sybil', *Cîteaux* 24 (1973), 97–138. According to McGinn, the 1180s were a time of great upheaval in Europe and many people turned to signs, stars, and Sibyls.

¹⁶ Richard the Lionheart had just come from concluding the peace treaty of 1192 with the caliph Saladin after the defeat of the Latin Kingdom of Jerusalem by the Muslims. For the political significance of these encounters, see Reeves, *Influence of Prophecy*, 3–15.

¹⁷ The order that he founded experienced such an expansion in the following decade that it was hailed by the Fourth Lateran Council in 1215 as one of the four pillars of the Church. Innocent III had opened the Council with a homily, based on Ez. 9, 4, in which the signing with the *Tau* became a symbol for spiritual renewal in the church. Francis of Assisi, thought to have been present at this event (and whose personal signature was the *Tau* symbol), became the figure of renewal who carried out Innocent's programme both literally and spiritually. See below.

¹⁸ Stephen Wessley, 'The Role of the Holy Land for the Early Followers of Joachim of Fiore', in R. N. Swanson, ed., *The Holy Land, Holy Lands, and Christian History*, SCH 36 (Woodbridge, 2000), 181–91.

¹⁹ Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, *The Figurae of Joachim of Fiore* (Oxford, 1972), 6.

These letter-by-letter similitudes and symmetries between Testaments were not used merely to understand the past – as in traditional scriptural allegory – but, far more daringly, to reveal the future. Joachim believed that he could anticipate the future from the remembered past.²⁰

The abbot's unique contribution is his use of the Trinity as the key to the meaning of world history,²¹ and it was this trinitarian scheme that would be so attractive to later religious thinkers in the New World. For Joachim, exegesis of Scripture reveals not only the grand plan of the two Testaments, but also a scheme of three periods of time called states (*status*).²² These are complex, organic, progressive, and interlocking in character. The first *status* began with Adam and lasted until Christ: it was ascribed to God the Father and was defined as the time of the order of the married people. The second *status* overlapped the first. It began to bear fruit in Christ, and lasted until Joachim's century. It was credited to the Son and was the time of the order of clerics. The third *status*, the time of the monastic orders – when all Christendom will be a monastic community – was ascribed to the Holy Spirit. It would make its full appearance in the thirteenth century, and would bear fruit in the last age down until the end of the world.²³ As his schematic drawings illustrate, Joachim's mind moved according to the rich combinations of pictorial and symbolic thought rather than the clarity of discursive mentality.²⁴

²⁰ Henri Mottu, *La Manifestation de l'Esprit selon Joachim de Fiore: herméneutique et théologie de l'histoire d'après le Traité sur les quatre évangiles* (Neuchâtel, 1977), 101–13.

²¹ Bernard McGinn, 'Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore', in *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquento*, 15–36; 18: 'If there is one thing that modern research on Joachim's view of history has shown us, it is that his views on historical periodization are highly complex, a combination of binary, ternary and multiple patterns involving elements of finality, progression and recurrence. . . . The notion of *concordia* involves not just a synoptic attempt to harmonize texts, or to compare a parallel series of events from the Old and New Testaments, but also the working out of the structural conformity or correlation of the two Testaments necessary to understand a coming third stage of history'.

²² Joachim divides the three periods differently in different contexts according to the image that he is developing at the moment. In general, they conform to (1) Old Testament, (2) New Testament, (3) The Age of the Holy Spirit, an approaching moment in the thirteenth century, c.1260, according to his calculations. See Reeves and Hirsch-Reich, *Figurae*, 248–55.

²³ Bernard McGinn, *Apocalyptic Spirituality* (New York, 1979), 102–3; Augustine Thompson, 'A Reinterpretation of Joachim of Fiore's *Dispositio Novi Ordinis* from the *Liber Figurarum*', *Cîteaux* 33 (1982), 194–205; Delno C. West and Sandra Zimdars-Swartz, *Joachim of Fiore: a Study in Spiritual Perception and History* (Bloomington, IN, 1983), 93.

²⁴ See Bernard McGinn, 'Symbolism in the Thought of Joachim of Fiore', in Ann Williams, ed., *Prophecy and Millenarianism: Essays in Honour of Marjorie Reeves* (Harlow, 1980),

According to abbot Joachim, the third age would be prefaced by an imminent crisis of history. During this time, two new religious orders of spiritual men would arise to confront Antichrist and his forces: an order of preachers in the spirit of Elijah (symbolized by the colour white), and an order of hermits in the spirit of Moses or Enoch (symbolized by the colour black).²⁵ (We shall meet these figures again in America.) Despite the vagueness of the abbot's descriptions, it would be hard for future generations not to see here a prophecy of the two mendicant orders that were born in the decade after Joachim's death, the Dominicans and the Franciscans.²⁶ These were also the first two religious orders to arrive in the New World, and it was the Franciscans who most developed this *mythos* there.

By the time of Francis and Dominic, several Joachimite texts were in circulation, and more would appear in the coming decades. Indeed, for the next several centuries prophetic texts concerning the Sibylline oracles, the visions of Merlin concerning the Holy Grail, the return of the lost tribes of Israel, the Last World Emperor, the Second Charlemagne, the Angelic Pope, the Islamic menace and proximity of Antichrist, and the rediscovery of the Terrestrial Paradise of Adam and Eve (in the New World) were often attributed to the Calabrian abbot.²⁷ Furthermore, many of the treatises ascribed to Joachim, but actually composed in the thirteenth century, originated in Franciscan circles. A distinctive Franciscan Joachimite apocalyptic was developing with three subplots: (1) the identification of the Franciscans and the Domini-

143-64. Joachim's many drawings and analyses using flora can be seen as vitalistic renewal in the general sense: see Gerhard Ladner, 'Vegetation Symbolism and the Concept of the Renaissance', in Millard Meiss, ed., *De artibus opuscula XL: Essays in Honor of Erwin Panofsky* (New York, 1961), 303-22.

²⁵ *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, fols 175v-176r, on Rev. 14, 15-16. Additionally, Joachim associates these two individuals with the two witnesses of Rev. 11, 1-14. See Herbert Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen über Joachim von Fiore* (Marburg, 1950), 106-7.

²⁶ The Augustinian Observants also saw themselves as the spiritual sons of Joachim. See Marjorie Reeves, 'Joachimist Expectations in the Order of Augustinian Hermits', *Recherches de théologie ancienne et médiévale* 25 (1958), 111-41.

²⁷ For the Sibylline Oracles, see McGinn, 'Joachim and the Sibyl', 98-100. For Joachim and Merlin, see De Lubac, *La posteridad espiritual de Joaquín de Fiore*, 2 vols (Madrid, 1988), 1: 15 and 78 [first published as *La postérité spirituelle de Joachim de Fiore* (Paris, 1981)]. For the reappearance in the late fifteenth century of prophecies related to Merlin, the Grail legend and the Grail castle, see *Baladro del sabio Merlin* (Burgos, Juan de Burgos, 1498): *Guía de lectura*, ed. Paloma Gracia (Madrid, 1998). The Grail was supposedly a possession of Charlemagne, and the Grail legend later passed into the mythology surrounding the Hapsburg dynasty, especially Charles V of Spain. See Marie Tanner, *The Last Descendant of Aeneas: the Hapsburgs and the Mythic Image of the Emperor* (New Haven, CT, 1993), 207-14. For a possible Joachimite origin of the Grail legend, see Reeves, *Influence of Prophecy*, 71-95.

cans with the two groups of spiritual men prophesied by Joachim; (2) the specification of radical poverty as the prophetic sign of the new spiritual men; (3) and the belief that Saint Francis was, in reality, the Angel of the Sixth Seal of Revelation, chapter 7, whose advent had marked the beginning of the critical period of history, the third *status*.²⁸ St Bonaventure saw the symbolic equation of Francis and the Angel of the Apocalypse and incorporated this interpretation into the official biography of the saint and into the liturgical hymns for Francis's feast, which made it safe for the orthodox.²⁹

Later, these and other Joachimite texts were being read by Christopher Columbus and the first friars who would travel to the New World. When printing was invented and Joachim's works were published by the mendicant friars in Venice, beginning in 1516, his thought and graphic images became available to the New World missionaries and members of their native flock.³⁰ At least one

²⁸ Stephanus Bihel, 'S. Franciscus fuitne angelus sexti sigilli?', *Antonianum* 2 (1927), 59–90; Stanisla0 da Campagnola, *L'Angelo del sesto sigillo e l'alter Christus: genesi e sviluppo di due temi francescani nei ss. XIII–XIV* (Rome, 1971), 7–48; John Fleming, *From Bonaventure to Bellini: an Essay in Franciscan Exegesis* (Princeton, NJ, 1982), 129–57. On Francis as the initiator of the third state, see Raoul Manselli, *La 'Lectura super Apocalypsim' di Pietro di Giovanni Olivi: ricerche sull'escatologismo medievale* (Rome, 1955), 211, n. 1; and Stanisla0 da Campagnola, 'Dai viri spirituales di Gioacchino da Fiore ai fratres spirituales di S. Francesco d'Assisi', *Picenum Seraphicum* 11 (1974), 24–52.

²⁹ Bonaventure, *Legenda maior S. Francisci Assisiensis et eiusdem Legenda Minor* (1263), ed. Collegii S. Bonaventurae (Florence, 1941), col. 13, Prologue: 'And so not without reason is he considered to be symbolized by the angel who ascends from the sunrise bearing the seal of the living God, in the true prophecy of that other friend of the Bridegroom, John the apostle and evangelist. For "when the sixth seal was opened", John says in the Apocalypse, "I saw another Angel, ascending from the rising of the sun, having the seal of the living God". The orthodox equation was also made in the papal bull of Leo X, *Ite vos in vineam meam* (1517), for the official recognition of the Observant Reform and the effective suppression of the Conventual Franciscans. See P. Di Fonzo, 'La famosa bolla di Leone X *Ite vos non Ite et vos*', *Miscellanea Francescana* 44 (1944), 164–71; and De Lubac, *La posteridad*, 1: 164. See also Fleming, *From Bonaventure to Bellini*, 18.

³⁰ The schema of world history, first explained in the *Book of Concordance*, was later summarized and included in the printed version of his commentary on the Apocalypse (1527). I used the copy in the Biblioteca Nacional de México. It is also found in a compilation of his thought – with tracts on the Sibylline Oracles, Antichrist, and the temporal *status* of the Church – published as *Abbas Joachim magnus propheta. Hec subiecta in hoc continentur libello. Espositio magni prophete ioachim: in librum beati Cirilli de magnis tribulationibus & statu Sanctae matris ecclesie: ab hiis nostris temporibus vsque ad finem seculi vna con compilatio ex diversis prophetis Novi ac Veteris Testamenti . . . Item explanatio figurate & pulchra in Apocalypsim de residuo statu Ecclesie . . . Item Tractus de Antichristo . . . Item Tractus septem statibus Ecclesie* (Venice, 1516; repr. by Bernardinum Benalium, 1520).



Fig. 1 Francisco de Escobar, convent of San Francisco, Lima, seventeenth century. 'Joachim directs the painting of St Francis in San Marco, Venice'. Photo: author

Joachimite text was translated into Náhuatl, the ancient language of the Aztecs.³¹

I said before that Joachim of Fiore and flying Francis of Assisi were seen in Latin America shortly after the eruption of Huaynaputina. I should really have informed the reader that they were seen in colonial painting. Between the years 1601 and the late eighteenth century, at least twelve extant series of cloister paintings of the life of Francis of Assisi were created containing scenes in which Joachim may have appeared.³² Unfortunately, certainty cannot be attained because several of the individual canvases have disappeared and several others are so severely damaged that it is impossible to be sure. I shall examine the most important examples without keeping to a strict chronology, beginning with those from the Andean region within earshot of the volcano Huaynaputina.

³¹ The text is known as the *Floreto de Sant Francisco* (not to be confused with the more familiar *Little Flowers*). See *Floreto de Sant Francisco, Sevilla 1492*, ed. Juana Mary Acelus Ulibarrena (Madrid, 1998), 149–58.

³² The only known cloister painting in Europe containing Joachim's portrait is that of the convent of Ognissanti, Florence. Interestingly enough, it was painted in 1601, one year after the eruption of Huaynaputina. See Bondatti, *Gioachinismo e francescanesimo*, 163–4; Batazzi, 'L'iconografia francescana', 278–80.

One of the earliest cycles was painted by the layman, Francisco de Escobar, for the cloister of the convent or friary of San Francisco, Lima, sometime in the seventeenth century [fig. 1]. Abbot Joachim, dressed in black, stands directing an artist to paint St Francis. Both seem to be privileged to look into the future where, to the right, the apocalyptic Francis flies by above St John the Evangelist, depicted upon the island of Patmos writing his visions, and below a balcony from which St Bonaventure and another doctor observe and write at their desks. I speculate that the second figure might well be that of the Franciscan scholar Peter John Olivi the primary theorist of the Spiritual Franciscans, a fervent Joachite, and author of a *Commentary on the Apocalypse* (1295). Olivi's exaltation of Francis as the angel of the Apocalypse comes closest to the later *De conformitate* of Bartholomew of Pisa in considering Francis to be a perfect *alter Christus*.³³ In his exposition of St Francis' *Rule*, Olivi incorporated a Joachimite scheme of history into it by expanding on Francis' statements about missionary activity and had Francis speak of an expectation of global salvation during the transitional days between the second and third statuses.³⁴ Olivi's 'franciscanizing' Apocalypse commentary was particularly admired by the Observant Franciscans (the group that evangelized America) who had it printed at their own expense in Venice in 1513.³⁵ Hence, contrary to the opinion of some commentators such as Professor Joseph-Ignasi Saranyana,³⁶ I think that John Peter Olivi is the best candidate for the identity of the figure in this painting and in another that I will mention below.

Here the scene represents the famous legend narrating that Joachim had travelled to Venice, where he had prophetically directed the depic-

³³ In spite of the opposition of the Inquisition, Peter John Olivi's Joachimist ideas circulated in Europe, especially Spain. See Manselli, *La 'Lectura super Apocalypsim'*, 211; idem, 'La resurrezione di san Francesco dalla teologia di Pietro de Giovanni Olivi ad una testimonianza di pietà popolare', *Collectanea Franciscana* 46 (1976), 309–20; idem, 'L'Apocalisse e l'interpretazione francescana della storia', in W. Lourdaux and D. Verhelst, eds, *The Bible and Medieval Culture* (Louvain, 1979), 157–70.

³⁴ Peter John Olivi, *Expositio super regulam fratrum minorum: Peter Olivi's Rule Commentary*, ed. David Flood (Wiesbaden, 1972), fols 123v–124r.

³⁵ See West, 'Medieval Ideas of Apocalyptic Mission', 297.

³⁶ See Josep I. Saranyana and Ana de Zaballa, *Joaquín de Fiore y América* (2nd edn, Pamplona, 1995), 143; and Saranyana's subsequent objection to my thesis, 'Joaquín de Fiore y el joaquinismo', in Ana de Zaballa Beascochea et al., eds, *Utopía, mesianismo y milenarismo: experiencias latinoamericanas* (Lima, 2002), 57–71. Not only does Saranyana deny the presence of Peter John Olivi in these paintings, he further denies the presence of Joachim of Fiore in any of them, or the influence of Joachim's theology of history in colonial Latin America.



Fig. 2 Gregorio Vásquez Ceballos, mid-17th century.
'Joachim displays the portraits of saints Francis and Dominic'.
Photo: courtesy of the Museo Colonial de Bogotá, Colombia

tion of the two spiritual men of the Third Age, that is, St Francis and St Dominic Guzman, in the sacristy of San Marco.³⁷ Indeed, the image of Francis which is being painted here is later hung above the open doorway through which we see a priest and acolyte ready to begin Mass.³⁸ The legend is found in a number of writings, but I will venture to guess that here it derives from the *De conformitate*, *The Conformity of the Life of St Francis to that Our Lord*, written by Bartholomew of Pisa circa 1390 and published in the sixteenth century.³⁹ This version of the story was the most accessible to American audiences and is probably the textual source.

A related painting of the mid-seventeenth century is found in

³⁷ See Bondatti, *Gioachinismo e francescanesimo*, 147–57. On the Joachimite theme of the *virii spirituales*, see da Campagnola, 'Dai virii spirituales', 24–52.

³⁸ Hector H. Schenone, *Iconografía del arte colonial: los santos*, 2 vols (Buenos Aires, 1992), 1: 330–9.

³⁹ Printed editions: Milan 1510, 1513. I consulted the 1513 edition. Two later editions from Bologna 1590 and 1620 are defective and appear to display deliberate omissions and tampering. The *De conformitate* has been reprinted with notes and commentary in *Analecta Franciscana* 4–5 (1906 and 1912).



Fig. 3 Juan Zapaca Inka, convent of Santiago de Chile.
'The Prophecy of St John on Patmos'.

Photo: courtesy of the Museo de la Orden Franciscana, Santiago

Bogotá, Colombia [fig. 2]. It depicts the same legend, but the protagonists are now outdoors in the Piazza San Marco: Joachim holds two paintings or models of the spiritual leaders, Francis and Dominic.⁴⁰ As in the Lima painting, this artist, Gregorio Vasquez y Ceballos, has chosen to dress Joachim in a black robe as a Benedictine, even though, as a former Cistercian, he should really be vested in white, as we shall see below.⁴¹

Joachim appears again in a series of cloister paintings by the Indian artist Juan Zapaca Inka in Santiago de Chile shortly after a devastating earthquake of 1647 [fig. 3]. At least two additional copies of this painting were made by other Indian artists: one for the Franciscan convent in Cuzco, Peru, in 1668 (one year after another eruption of Huaynaputina), and another for their convent in the Indian town of Ocopa, Peru, in 1768. Both locales are within the general area of Huaynaputina and other active volcanoes.

The three paintings represent a scene of the 'Prophecy' or prediction

⁴⁰ This legend corresponds to the version as told by St Antoninus of Florence. See *Divi Antonini archiepiscopi Florentini Chronicorum opus* (Lyons, 1586), part III, 559.

⁴¹ Schenone, *Iconografía*, 337. See note 14 above.



Fig. 4 Basilio de Santa Cruz, convent of San Francisco, Cuzco, Peru, 1668.
'The Prophecy of St John on Patmos'. Photo: author

of the coming of St Francis as the sixth angel of the Apocalypse who rises up from the East.⁴² On the right, the Eritrean Sibyl observes from a hilltop, with St Bonaventure below her. On the left, John of Patmos is inspired to write his Apocalypse, whilst above in a hut the diminutive figure of Joachim with a long beard is barely visible. In the Cuzco version of the painting, we can see him better. Once again, he is painting; but this time he sits below three suns, symbolic of the two ages that have come and gone and of the now-dawning third age [fig. 4].⁴³

⁴² On Francis of Assisi as the sixth angel of the Apocalypse, see Bihel, 'S. Franciscus fuitne'; da Campagnola, *L'angelo del sesto sigillo*. Unfortunately, the authors do not treat the Counter-Reformation era.

⁴³ Gabriel Guarda *et al.*, *Barroco hispanoamericano en Chile: Vida de San Francisco de Asís* (Santiago de Chile, 2002), 30–1; and Schenone, *Iconografía*, 334–5.

Joachim also appears in at least three representations of the birth of St Francis. In Mexico, the lay artist Luis Berrueco painted two elaborate canvases sometime before 1750, and possibly a third.⁴⁴ The first painting was housed in the Franciscan church of the Indian town of Huaquechula located at the foot of yet another active volcano, Popocatepetl.⁴⁵ The work was commissioned by a wealthy Indian chief [fig. 5]. The birth of St Francis is witnessed not only by Joachim (correctly dressed in white at the extreme right), but also by St Bonaventure, the Sibyl, St John the Evangelist, the archangel Raphael, and by the prophets of the Last Days, Enoch and Elijah. The Sibyl, placed on the lower left, writes these words in her book: 'There will be a fearful beast who will come from the East and two stars will rise up against it'. The beast, a dragon with a long tail depicted next to Joachim, is falling headlong whilst two stars seem to be pursuing it.⁴⁶ The figure on the lower right, who I identify once again as Peter John Olivi, writes in his book the familiar quote from Revelation 7, 2: 'I saw another angel who came up from where the sun arises ...'.

The background of the canvas may further relate to the Book of Revelation, chapter 6, verses 12–13: 'And the sun went as black as coarse sackcloth; the moon turned red as blood, and the stars of the sky fell upon the earth'. The details seem to describe events similar to those of a volcanic eruption; indeed, something like an eruption is occurring behind the figure of Joachim.⁴⁷ In the *De conformitate*, Bartholomew of Pisa explicitly likened the coming of Francis of Assisi to an earthquake by reference to this biblical verse: [*Franciscus*] *factus est terremotus magnus*.⁴⁸

Recently, I have had the good fortune to discover a second painted version of this theme that was originally housed in the conventual church of the Franciscans in the nearby city of Atlixco, which is also within the potential destruction area, or 'red zone', of the Mexican

⁴⁴ Elisa Vargas Lugo and Marco Días, 'Historia, leyenda y tradición en una serie franciscana', *Anales del Instituto de Investigaciones Estéticas*, Universidad Nacional Autónoma de México 44 (1975), 59–82. I have made some preliminary investigation of a series on the life of St Francis in San Martín Texmelucan, Puebla (also near the Mexican volcano), that leads me to believe there was another identical painting.

⁴⁵ In the Mexican state of Puebla. The painting was stolen in 2000 when its iconographic value was discovered. Lamentably, it is now lost.

⁴⁶ The beast is identified with Mohammed in the *De conformitate* (Milan, 1513), fol. 12r.

⁴⁷ The possible visual reference to 'sackcloth' might hint at the *ordo saccis vestitus* mentioned by Joachim of Fiore. See Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 168 and 182.

⁴⁸ See 'De conformitate', *Analecta Franciscana* 4 (1906), 77.



Fig. 5 Luis Berrueco, church of San Martín, Huaquechula, Mexico, before 1750. 'The Nativity of St Francis'. Photo: author

volcano.⁴⁹ Here we see a youthful and handsome Joachim (extreme left), together with St Bonaventure and the evangelist John (upper left), the Sibyl and John Peter Olivi (lower left), and an Old Testament prophet [fig. 6]. The defeated seven-headed dragon and the pursuing stars are more clearly evident at the lower right; whilst the smiling face of a dawning sun – a new age – appears over the horizon.

The earliest treatment of this theme appears to have been in 1601 at Potosí, Bolivia – again, near to Huaynaputina, and only one year after the first eruption, but it has unfortunately lost its auxiliary figures.⁵⁰ A

⁴⁹ Vargas Lugo and Díaz, 'Historia, leyenda y tradición', 66. There was a third and earlier series in the convent of San Francisco, Mexico City. A later series in Zacatecas may have had a similar scene, as also the series at the Franciscan church of Antigua, Guatemala, a city destroyed in an earthquake. See Luis Luján Muñoz, 'Nueva información sobre la pintura de Cristóbal de Villalpando en Guatemala', *Anales del Instituto de Investigaciones Estéticas* 57 (1986), 113–37; and Juana Gutiérrez Haces et al., *Cristóbal de Villalpando (ca. 1649–1714): catálogo razonado* (Mexico City, 1997), 261–3, 385–7.

⁵⁰ According to Mgr Bernardino Rivera, OFM, auxiliary bishop and historian of Potosí, there were originally thirty-six paintings of the life of St Francis in the cloister by the painter Francisco Navarro. Many were lost in 1880 when cloister walls and ceilings were replaced. The 'Nacimiento' was cut down to make room for the installation of a new stairway.

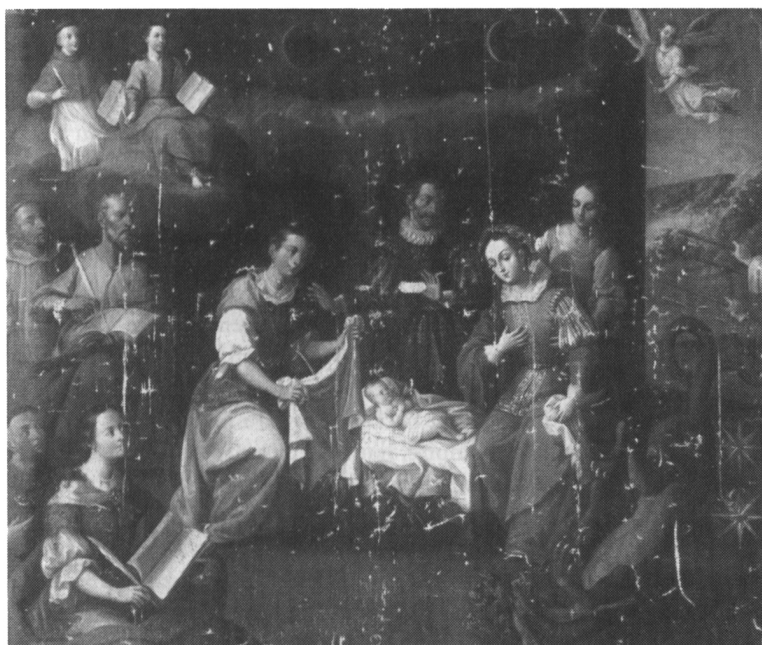


Fig. 6. Luis Berrueco, from Atlixco, Mexico, before 1750. Private collection.
'The Nativity of St Francis'. Photo: author

later version of the theme of Francis's birth in Santiago de Chile, again by Juan Zapaca Inka, does not depict Abbot Joachim. It does, however, include the defeated demons, the archangel Raphael, dressed as a pilgrim, who seals the infant Francis with the cross, and again the same archangel who carries the news and image of the saint's birth to Enoch and Elijah in Paradise.⁵¹ In Joachim of Fiore's writings on the Book of Tobit, the archangel Raphael represents both the person and the inspiration of the Holy Spirit in the third age. The archangel Raphael also acted as godfather at Francis's baptism in popular legend and art.⁵²

* * *

⁵¹ Saint Bonaventure, *Legenda Maior*, prologue. For the Chilean iconography, see Guarda, *Barroco hispanoamericano*, 34–5.

⁵² Lerner, 'Joachim of Fiore's Vision of Irenic Conversion', and Guarda, *Barroco hispanoamericano*, 36–9.

It is obvious from these images that the proper subject of the paintings is not Joachim of Fiore but rather Francis of Assisi, and one could understand Joachim's appearance here as merely a moment in popular Franciscan eschatology or an 'ornamental use' of Joachim of Fiore, as one author has stated.⁵³ Granted, the authentic works of Joachim would not be determined until the twentieth century, and Joachimite texts were commonly accepted as part of his canonical works.⁵⁴ But the fact is that, in addition to his image in art, Joachim's three ages of world history were known in the Americas, and with some precision of thought amongst the christianized Incas and Maya.

Twentieth-century anthropologists have been able to document beliefs in the ages of the Father, Son and Holy Spirit, among indigenous people in mountain villages and remote hamlets of the Andes.⁵⁵ The precise locations are important because they are more or less coextensive with the ancient Inca empire, but the epicentre of the belief can be situated around Huaynaputina. This area is also replete with images of the winged Francis of Assisi.

The Trinitarian legends to which I am referring have several variations all of which show an imprecision or popularization when compared to Joachim's *three ages* as articulated in his authentic writings. They also demonstrate a syncretic convergence between the three pre-Hispanic ages and a later trinitarian reinterpretation.⁵⁶

In brief, the first Andean age is that of *Dios Yaya*, God the Father, and the time of the *machu*, meaning Gentiles. The second is that of *Dios Churi*, God the Son, Jesus Christ, understood as the new solar deity who, during the evangelization, replaced the Aztec sun god, Inti.⁵⁷ Solar

⁵³ See Saranyana and Zaballa, *Joaquín de Fiore y América*, 143.

⁵⁴ Cf. Saranyana, 'Joaquín de Fiore y el joaquinitismo', 67. To say, as Saranyana does, that Joachim's thought was never known in America because his authentic works circulated together with Joachimite texts is just as ludicrous as to say that Thomas Aquinas's ideas were unknown to eighteenth- and nineteenth-century scholars because they came through secondary sources and commentaries.

⁵⁵ Henrique-Osvaldo Urbano, 'Del sexo, incesto y los ancestros de Inkari: mito, utopía e historia en las sociedades andinas', *Allpanchis* 17-18 (1981), 77-103; Fernando Fuenzalida, 'El mundo de los gentiles y las tres eras de la creación', *Revista de la Universidad Católica*, Pontificia Universidad Católica del Perú, ns 2 (1977), 59-84; Olivia Harris, 'De la fin du monde: notes depuis le nord-Potosí', *Cahiers des Ameriques Latines* n.s. 6 (1987), 93-118; Manuel M. Marzal et al., *The Indian Face of God in Latin America* (Maryknoll, NY, 1996), 86.

⁵⁶ Henrique Osvaldo-Urbano, 'Dios Yaya, Dios Churi y Dios Espíritu: modelos trinitarios y arqueología mental en los Andes', *Journal of Latin American Lore* 6 (1980), 111-27.

⁵⁷ See Jaime Lara, 'The Sacramented Sun: Solar Eucharistic Worship in Colonial Latin America', in Peter Casarella and Raúl Gómez, eds, *El Cuerpo de Cristo: the Hispanic Presence in the U.S. Catholic Church* (New York, 1998), 261-91.

imagery and metaphors were used by the missionaries from the earliest moments of the New World evangelization to create an indigenous Christology. In Mexico, for example, the Franciscans inserted black obsidian mirrors in their outdoor crosses, not only to catch the sunlight, but also to retain the pre-Hispanic connotations of sacred blood, human and divine, offered in sacrifice to the solar deity.⁵⁸ In Peru, on the other hand, a common feature of evangelization churches is a solar eucharistic balcony at the east end of the building behind the high altar. Some of these balconies were lined with mirrors and used for the exposition of the Blessed Sacrament in its monstrance at the hour of sunrise. Thus, the age of *Dios Churi*, Jesus Christ the *sol iusticiae*, was ingeniously crafted as a new solar era; and this belief continues today. For the majority of those interviewed over the last thirty years by the anthropologists, the second age is the present moment in which we live.

The third age is that of *Dios Espíritu*, God the Holy Spirit, and for many of those interviewed, it was to begin in the millennial year 2000. The transition from one age to the other occurs through a catastrophe, a tragedy with cosmic dimensions, a universal cataclysm, which is the aforementioned *pachacuti*, the upheaval of world, time, and space.⁵⁹ For example, between the first and second ages the Gentiles are said to have risen in insurrection against the newborn sun, and were subsequently burnt to death by its heat.⁶⁰ We can now understand why the natives reacted to the eruption of Huaynaputina in the way they did, and the fact that the conquered Incas saw the event as the end of one age and the beginning of another: they anticipated the defeat of the European invaders and their god.

Both the concept of *pachacuti* and of three world ages can be traced back to pre-Hispanic times by way of the early chroniclers, such as the Jesuit historian Anello Olvia, who approvingly recorded and published this Inca version of providential history in 1601, significantly only one year after the eruption of Huaynaputina.⁶¹ Another written source is

⁵⁸ See Lara, *City, Temple, Stage*, 41–69.

⁵⁹ Thérèse Bouysse Cassagne, *La identidad Aymara: aproximación histórica (siglo XV, siglo XVI)* (La Paz, 1987), 174–95; Manuel Burga and Alberto Flores Galindo, 'La utopía andina', *Allpanchis* 17–20 (1982), 85–102; Sabine MacCormack, 'Pachacuti: Miracles, Punishments and Last Judgment: Visionary Past and Prophetic Future in Early Colonial Peru', *American Historical Review* 93–4 (1988), 960–1006; eadem, *Religion in the Andes: Vision and Imagination in Early Colonial Peru* (Princeton, NJ, 1991), 281–331; and Milhou, 'Apocalypticism', 27–30.

⁶⁰ In another version, a judgement by water or deluge had occurred at the end of the first age. See Fuenzalida, 'El mundo de los gentiles', 63–4.

⁶¹ MacCormack, 'Pachacuti', 980–1.

that of the christianized Inca, Felipe Guaman Poma de Ayala, an Andean picture-thinker and social commentator.⁶² In his *New Chronicle and Good Government* (1615), he identified the eruption of Huaynaputina and the destruction of the city of Arequipa as divine chastisement and as one of the signs of the approaching end of the world.⁶³ In Guaman Poma's schema, there are several world epochs, each represented by a historical figure as in Joachim's exegesis.⁶⁴ It seems more than coincidental that the fourth epoch commenced with King David, whom Guaman Poma depicts playing a ten-stringed harp,⁶⁵ in accordance with the title of one of Joachim's major theological works, the *Psalterium Decem Chordarum*.⁶⁶

Furthermore, Guaman Poma's half-brother, Martin de Ayala, was a secular priest who later became a hermit. The holiness of hermits held a special attraction for the author, and one could speculate that he knew of Joachim of Fiore, the holy hermit of Mount Etna, and admired him for precisely that reason (see <http://www.kb.dk/elib/mss/poma/index-en.htm>; fol. 645).⁶⁷

The description of the third age in modern Andean mythology is particularly striking. In remarkable consistency with the colonial anti-Spanish feelings, today's descendants of the Incas hope for a return

⁶² The autograph manuscript of Guaman Poma, housed in the Royal Library of Denmark, Copenhagen (GkS 2232 4to) consists of nearly 1200 pages, including 398 full-page drawings.

⁶³ See the author's manuscript illustration at <http://www.kb.dk/elib/mss/poma/index-en.htm> at fol. 1061 [consulted 6 December 2004]. See also, Guaman Poma de Ayala, *Nueva crónica y buen gobierno*, ed. J. Murra, Rolena Adorno and Jorge L. Urioste (Madrid, 1987); Rolena Adorno, *Guaman Poma: Writing and Resistance in Colonial Peru* (2nd edn, Austin, TX, 2000); Jan Szeminski, 'From Inca Gods to Spanish Saints and Demons', in Steven Kaplan, ed., *Indigenous Responses to Western Christianity* (New York, 1995), 56–74.

⁶⁴ Juan Ossio, 'Las cinco edades del mundo según Felipe Guaman Poma de Ayala', *Revista de la Universidad Católica* ns 2 (1977), 43–58.

⁶⁵ See <http://www.kb.dk/elib/mss/poma/index-en.htm>, fol. 28 (consulted 6 December 2004).

⁶⁶ Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium decem chordarum* (Venice, 1527). The *Psalterium* was earlier known through the mendicant publication *Abbas Joachim magnus propheta*: see above, n. 30. Also see MacCormack, 'Pachacuti', n. 59.

⁶⁷ The association of holy hermits to Joachim of Fiore's third age of the Holy Spirit was explicitly made by Pedro de Quiroga, canon of the cathedral of Cuzco, Peru. Joachim is frequently mentioned in relation to the holy hermit, Cyril of Mt Carmel (of the Sibylline Oracles), and with Enoch and Elijah in the *De conformitate* (Milan, 1513), fol. 12r. See MacCormack, 'Pachacuti', 975, who believes that Guaman knew of Joachim's works through his close working relationship with the Jesuits. Even if he never mentions Joachim of Fiore by name, his contemporaries in Peru certainly did. The Jesuit, José de Acosta, and the Augustinian friar, Antonio de la Calancha, both cite Joachim's *Treatise on the Apocalypse* and other writings.

of Inca Viracocha, the great creator god and culture hero. The third age will supposedly be a utopian and paradisiacal time when human beings will become *runas*: they will sprout multi-coloured wings and fly like hummingbirds (or like the flying Francis). They will be vegetarians, and there will be no disease or injustice.

Flying men were not unknown in pre-conquest Peru; they appear to have been Inca priests who dressed in flying costumes. But it appears that the myth was contaminated or deliberately altered early on by the mendicant friars' stories of their spiritual men like flying Francis of Assisi or flying Dominic de Guzmán.⁶⁸ The reinterpretation through a Christian lens seems more than coincidental.

It also seems more than coincidental that in seventeenth- and eighteenth-century literature both the Jesuits and the mendicant orders were aggressively claiming Joachim of Fiore as the visionary who foresaw their particular orders' founding. In the Andes, Francis of Assisi flies as the herald of the Inca-Christian third age. Francis also flies in other Andean painting with multi-coloured wings as another Michael the Archangel defending the dogmas of the Catholic Church against the charges of the Protestant heretics – often in a visual defence of the doctrine of the Immaculate Conception.⁶⁹

Nor is it by coincidence that Protestants were particularly critical at this moment of literary works that exalted Francis of Assisi, such as the *De conformitate*, which they considered blasphemous and they virulently ridiculed. One such stinging satire had been written by Erasmus Alber (1500–53), a student of Martin Luther. The work first appeared in Wittenberg in 1542. It was translated into several European languages, among them an English edition of 1679 popular among Protestants in North America.⁷⁰

⁶⁸ On Andean angels, see Teresa Gisbert, *Iconografía y mitos indígenas en el arte* (La Paz, 1980, repr. 1994), 86–8. A flying St Vincent Ferrer – who had declared himself to be the angel of the Apocalypse – also appears in Latin American colonial art. By coincidence, a bust of a flying Vincent Ferrer is found in Cosenza, Italy, in the church which marks the site of Joachim's birthplace.

⁶⁹ The role of St Francis as a new Michael the Archangel, who has been given the empty throne of Lucifer in heaven, is expounded in the *De conformitate*. See *Analecta Franciscana* 4 (1906), 53; also John V. Fleming, *An Introduction to the Franciscan Literature of the Middle Ages* (Chicago, IL, 1977), 47. Due to publication restrictions, I was unable to include the images of these paintings in this study.

⁷⁰ Alber's satire was popular well into the eighteenth century through the French translation, *L'Alcoran des Cordeliers* (1556), extant in several colonial Latin American libraries. The English edition, *The Alcoran of the Franciscans, or a sink of lies and blasphemies, collected out of a*

In response to Alber's disparagement, a Peruvian Franciscan, a *mestizo* (half-Indian, half-Spaniard) by the name of Pedro Alva y Astorga defended and amplified the *De conformitate*, and went to the opposite apologetic extreme. In 1651 he published the *Naturae prodigium gratiae portentum*, in which he went far beyond Bartholomew of Pisa to discover more than four thousand similarities between Francis and Christ.⁷¹ The frontispiece of the work was one of the iconographic inspirations for flying Francis, who has merged totally with Christ, the crucified seraph.⁷² Alva y Astorga's text for the 'Nativity of Saint Francis' corresponds to the saint's depiction and details in the paintings at Huaquechula and Atlixco. Indeed, the text was, no doubt, that used by the painter Luis Berruero as his inspiration:

At the birth of Francis, many rejoiced and were glad; to wit, the mother, the parents, and the relatives of the child, as well as the neighbours and friends and the whole household of his father. And those three, Joachim the Abbot, Enoch the Patriarch, and Elias the Prophet, when they heard about his nativity, rejoiced with great gladness.⁷³

* * *

In sum, the few paintings we have examined in which Joachim and Francis appear together must be considered representative of several more now lost or yet to be discovered – an enterprise that this writer is actively pursuing. Joachim and the flying Francis appear in Franciscan

blasphemous book belonging to that Order called 'The Book of the Conformities' (London, 1679), was an early textbook at Yale University.

⁷¹ *Naturae Prodigium gratiae Portentum hoc est Seraphici P.N. Francisci vitae acta ad Christi D.N. Vita & mortem regulata, & coaptata...* (Madrid, 1651). Fray Pedro, Minorite, later worked in Rome on the cause of the sainthood of Francisco Solano, the only other Franciscan saint who occasionally flies in Latin American art. See *Scriptores Ordinis Minorum*, ed. Luke Wadding (Rome, 1650; repr. Bologna, 1978), 184, 187, 275.

⁷² See Pamela Askew, 'The Angelic Consolation of St Francis of Assisi in Post-Tridentine Italian Painting', *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institute* 32 (1969), 280–305; and *Lexikon der Christlichen Ikonografie*, 8 vols (Rome, 1968–76), 6: 311–12 and fig. 16.

⁷³ In his objection to the presence of Joachim in these paintings and to a significant influence of the abbot's thought in Latin America, Prof. Saranyana seems to be unaware of these sources. See notes 36 and 54 above. The Latin text of the *Naturae Prodigium* (p. 19) reads: 'In Nativitate Francisci multi laetati, & gauissi sunt, videlicet Mater, parentes, & cognati pueri, atque vicini, & amici, ac tota paterna domus; & tres illi, ioachimus Abbas, Enoch Patriarcha, & Helias Propheta, audientes eius nativitatem gauissi sunt gaudio magno'. I have made use of the copy extant in the Biblioteca Nacional de México, Mexico City (No. 922, 245 FRA. a).

establishments located in highly volcanic or seismically active regions. Earthquakes and volcanoes appear to have been the stimuli for the depiction of these eschatological scenes. Joachim and the flying Francis appear more often than not in paintings either created by native artists or commissioned by wealthy indigenous nobles. Several were commissioned for Indian towns.

Joachim's presence should be seen in relation to depictions of the flying Francis of Assisi who, as the Angel of the Apocalypse, is in a defensive posture against attacks from within the Catholic Church and from without: rival claims on the part of the Dominicans and Jesuits that *their* founders were the prophesied Angel of the Apocalypse, and Protestants who satirized the excesses of Franciscan filial fervour. Rooting Francis of Assisi in Joachim's prophetic literature was an ingenious counter-measure in the polemics of the Counter-Reformation.

But it also was a visual response to Indian unrest, and an implicit approval of the political status quo in the face of a 'war of prophecies'. The seventeenth and eighteenth centuries were a time of native uprisings throughout the Spanish colonies in the Americas.⁷⁴ The astute Indian leaders of these insurrections were making use of Christian imagery and rhetoric – frequently taken from the Book of Revelation – to justify their rebellion against the Spanish Antichrist. They predicted the return of the Great Inca and the violent ousting of the interlopers.⁷⁵ The revived *mythos* of pre-Hispanic heroes like flying men of the third age were becoming more and more bellicose and dangerous to the claims of both state and church.⁷⁶ Therefore, as a counter-measure to the subversive native-inspired apocalyptic, the winged man of the third age, Francis of Assisi, was also able to re-channel native fears and aspi-

⁷⁴ Antonio Porro, 'Un nuevo caso de milenarismo maya en Chiapas y Tabasco, México, 1727', *Estudios de historia novohispana* 6 (1978), 109–17; Alonso Zarzar, *Apo Capac Huayna, Jesús Sacramentado: Mito, utopía y milenarismo en el pensamiento de Juan Santos Atahualpa* (Lima, 1989), 62–3; José Luis Milafuentes Galván, 'Agustín Ascuhul, el profeta de Moctezuma. Milenarismo y aculturación en Sonora 1737', *Estudios de historia novohispana* 12 (1992), 123–41; David Timmer, 'Providence and Perdition: Fray Diego de Landa Justifies his Inquisition against the Yucatecan Maya', *ChH* 66 (1997), 477–88; D. D. Gow, 'The Roles of Christ and Inkarrí in Andean Religion', *Journal of Latin American Lore* 6 (1980), 279–98; MacCormack, 'Pachacuti', 982–87; and Milhou, 'Apocalypticism', 26–30.

⁷⁵ See Graziano, *Millennial New World*, 89–131 and *passim*.

⁷⁶ In their teaching addressed to the Indians, most missionaries during the late sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, far from hastening the age of the Holy Spirit, sought to support the colonial order of society. See Sabine MacCormack, 'The Heart Has its Reasons: Predicaments of Missionary Christianity in Early Colonial Peru', *Hispanic American Historical Review* 67 (1985), 443–66.

rations into a Christian eschatology and the expectation of a fully Christian utopian third age in a world beset by apocalyptic eruptions and tremors, both geological and metaphorical. This vulcanological Joachim of Fiore and this aerodynamic Francis of Assisi were a testimony to the signs, wonders, and miracles of an age that was yet to come.

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